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The Politic, Inc., "Yale Political Journal; A Magazine of Student Opinion 1947 February" (1947). *The Politic*. 6.
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FEBRUARY 1947

Yale POLITICAL JOURNAL

A Magazine of Student Opinion

MARXISM AND FEDERALISM

first part of an article by THOMAS HUGHES

Articles by

MARTIN DWORKIS

OSCAR GRAY and
ALAN NAFTALIN

GERALD HEGARTY

EDITORIAL AND REVIEWS

TWENTY-FIVE CENTS

SCHENECTADY
PRINTING COMPANY

General Printing

◆

Publishers of the YALE POLITICAL JOURNAL

Yale POLITICAL JOURNAL

VOLUME ONE, NUMBER ONE — FEBRUARY, 1947

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Published Quarterly By

YALE POLITICAL JOURNAL
1621 YALE STATION
NEW HAVEN, CONN.

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FROM THE EDITORS

THERE is no fairer question to be asked of the Editors of a new publication than: why have you started the magazine? We owe an answer to those who we hope will be our future readers and contributors, especially since continued existence and success in this future period will depend on the support of students at Yale and at other universities throughout the country. We have coined as our by-line, "a magazine of student opinion", presupposing that student opinion is worthy of separation from the attitudes of other groups and that it is worthy as well of attention and study.

Students today include not only the traditional body of 18 to 22 year olds as in the past but also the large group of veterans, older, more mature, more responsible members of the community. As such the student group is perhaps more politically competent than ever before in the past. Even of the younger student it can be said that concern with political questions has been forced upon him by the immediacy of the problems facing the world today. There is a closer connection than previously has been the case between the matters of theory that one studies in the university and their practical application to matters that will no longer wait for an answer at the pleasure of the individual; we are faced by problems whose successful solution will make either for a profitable, secure future or for a continuation of the chaos which has marked the past 25 years of the history of civilization. These problems force responsibility on us as has never before been the case with the college student. And responsibility calls for intelligent interest.

It is to provide an outlet for the expression of this intelligent interest that the *Journal* has been founded, to provide an outlet for the ideas of a generation faced with alternatives of success or ruin. We hope to present on the pages of the *Journal* the most worthwhile opinions of this student group which are sent to us for consideration. Articles treating of any phase of the present-day socio-political framework will be accepted as well as those which consider such problems from the historical approach. The latitude of the material which will appear in the *Journal* will be limited only by the interests of our contributors. Our aim is to publish the most cogent ideas of this group whose interests we represent and whose attitudes we insist should be treated with respect. We believe that students do not have to be impulsive and purely derivative, that they have as a body fresh and distinctive approaches to questions that are certainly new for our day insofar as they are considered in a contemporary frame of reference.

We would not have been able to plan the magazine and certainly would not have been able to publish this first issue without the advice and encouragement of certain members of the Yale faculty. Dean DeVane and Dean Havemeyer have been very kind in consenting to the plans for publication of the *Journal* and in facilitating our work in every way possible. We also appreciate the aid of our three faculty advisors, Professors Francis W. Coker, David Potter and Harold Williamson. In selection of content and in planning for the publication and distribution of the magazine, all three have given us considerable of their time and abilities. We find it encouraging that all of these men (as well as many others from various universities all over the country) have encouraged us in our aims and have respected the importance of the student material that goes to make up the magazine. They have seconded us in our insistence that the student should be heard and that he should have an organ in which his opinions may find an outlet.

The Editors hope that this first issue of the YALE POLITICAL JOURNAL will be followed by many more numbers containing the best and most representative possible material by students all over the country. We will welcome with great interest all contributions that are sent us that deal with problems of current political and economic issues or those that place these problems in their historical perspective. The only rigid rule is that all articles must be the original work of undergraduate and graduate students.

The second issue for this college year will be published in April. All material for this publication date must be in the hands of the Editors by the second week of March. Send contributions or requests for more detailed information to the YALE POLITICAL JOURNAL, 1621 YALE STATION, NEW HAVEN, CONNECTICUT.

EDITORIAL

On Educational Reform

JUST causes are often lost because of the over-abundance of zeal on the part of their most sympathetic proponents; even when certain problems are so clearly drawn as to exclude doubt as to the necessity of reform, other equally important problems are glossed over. In the case of wage increases demanded by teachers, what is asked for is surely little in proportion to the job required. Yet, granting the justice of increased pay, the whole question of educational reform is not answered. The mere mention of teachers' arguments is enough: the facts speak eloquently for themselves. A job that requires at least four years of college training will return no more than a small fraction of the amount earned by members of other professions after the same length and intensity of preparation. A profession whose duty it is to give final formal training to over 90 per cent of the total adult population is paid *less* than one will receive for bartending or garbage disposal. But to stop with pay increases is as tragic a mistake as underpay itself. Teachers insist on the grave responsibility that they assume every day in classrooms: they claim with reason that their pay must be proportional to their responsibility. But the opposite is also true: if they are to receive more money, teachers must as well do that much better a job than they do now. The state administrators in their turn will have to assume the duty of curing further evils in the educational system on which they will spend more money.

One of the stock arguments for higher pay is that present wage levels attract only second-rate people, that the best of the recent college graduates will turn to teaching only as a last resort. But in this very argument for their own cause, the teaching profession lays itself open to attack for inefficiency. Raising pay will attract new people who may be first-rate; but the present staffs will not automatically be made more efficient or more capable in their work. No amount of pay rises can make poor, ill-equipped and intellectually lazy teachers into the alert-minded sort necessary to understand and to project in their classrooms the vitally new ideas of the year 1947. Although standards for entrance into the profession have been made more discriminating in recent years, the teachers of a decade or more standing will remain in our schools. It is absurd to assume that *all* teachers with ten years or more of experience are thus summarily branded as poor teachers. But the profession that wishes to impress on the public mind its own great importance to a political democracy cannot include *one* inefficient or ill-informed person in its members. Even for these new and better men and women who will be drawn to the nation's schools by attractive new wages, there is the possibility that habitual work with essentially the same subject matter over a number of years will cause mental stultification and continued low standards of educational methods. Let the profession assume its responsibility of training in all matters of elementary citizenship and public awareness, but let the *public* also be assured that they can expect their money's worth.

Keeping the teaching profession always alert is no insurmountable problem. There are two easily accomplished means for insuring continuous professional skill: first, through nationally controlled inspection by means of actual periodic attendance in the class room; and second, through frequent examinations stressing the latest developments in the subject area being taught. England has long had a system of nationally administered inspection in its schools. Some of the finest figures in English public life spend their retirement from high public office in such work as this. And as to examinations: if the student is expected to pass tests of his knowledge of a subject, his teacher should certainly be required to reach *and maintain* a high level of competence in the same subject.

The entire problem of inspection and examination implies the necessary existence of a nation-wide criterion which all teachers should approximate. And if the criterion shall be national, in the sense that all students in all parts of the country may expect a uniformly high grade of instruction, then the administration must also be national. The present Commissioner of Education is only a powerless, small-scale replica of what an educational leader should be. If the problems of education and the application of this education in public life are national in scope, the least that is necessary is a strong advisory group which would be able to integrate the existing forty-eight varieties of educative systems into a comprehensive organization

through which all future citizens must pass. No one questions the advisability of *one* Department of State, of *one* Commerce Commission, of one powerful body that functions in any area of national concern. And certainly the maintenance of an ably organized and staffed educational system is as national a responsibility as the determination of rail rates or even as the formulation of a foreign policy. Especially is this so in the United States In any nation that posits final legal sovereignty with the mass of its people, the wisdom of its governance can be no greater than the intelligence and judgment of the sovereign. Although constant practice in political democracy increases this wisdom, only formal education on a high level can implement this innate judgment with the study of certain basic subjects. This country will never work at maximum efficiency so long as the average knowledge of history or economics extends to little more than a definition of the words or so long as its teachers have not the capacity to teach wisely and well. No nation is a nation at all unless it can control the means for its own continued vitality: education is among the most important of these means.

None of these considerations should stop the grant of immediate reform measures for teachers' pay. But it is dangerous to stop short of the long-run goals in the field of education. Teachers' pressure groups argue forcefully for the first step toward better and infinitely more capably run schools. If, once their first objective is reached, they would continue to press for other and more important reforms, this would be positive proof that they deserve the respect of the nation as the single most significant agency in the formation of a skilled personnel for the protection and advancement of our democratic state.

NOTES ON CONTRIBUTORS

THOMAS L. HUGHES, the author of "Marxism and Federalism", is now a student at Carleton College in Northfield, Minnesota. During 1944 and 1945 he served as President of the Student Federalist organization. Mr. Hughes has recently been awarded a Rhodes Scholarship for study at Oxford University in England. The second part of this article, originally delivered as a lecture before the Student Federalists Institute in Chicago, will appear in our April issue.

GERALD HEGARTY was graduated from Yale last year. He is now working in Springfield and plans to enter Harvard Law School in the fall of this year. While at Yale, Mr. Hegarty was active in the Political Union's Labor Party.

MARTIN B. DWORKIS is a graduate of the University of Michigan. He is now a Ph. D. matriculate in the Department of Government at New York University.

OSCAR GRAY and ALAN Y. NAFTALIN, who collaborated on the article "Palestine in Crisis", are both students in Yale College at the present time. . . . JOHN FARNSWORTH re-entered Yale College at the beginning of this month to resume his studies, interrupted by a year of military service.

MARXISM AND FEDERALISM

by Thomas L. Hughes

This article was originally written as a lecture, delivered at the Student Federalists' Institute in Chicago in the fall of 1946. We are very grateful to the Institute and to Mr. Hughes for allowing us to print the lecture in full. This is the first part of the article; the second and final section will be published in the second issue of the JOURNAL *which will appear in April.*

—THE EDITORS

WHEN we decide to devote two discussions in a Student Federalist convention to the ideas of a man who died in 1883, we may infer either that someone wanted an intellectual sideshow which would lighten up the customary routine of federalist gatherings, or else that Marxism perhaps poses some serious obstacles which federalists might profitably start to ponder. It's because I'm convinced that federalists have generally skirted the problems raised by Marxists, and yet must pay more than a little attention to those problems, that I wanted us to talk this over. It is important to discuss this now, because the world crisis is crucial for Marxists too: today we are on the highroad of Marxian concepts, but we live in a time when Marx's ethical aims are almost in ashes. In Europe, Asia, and South America, movements which claim Marx as their prophet have reached the peaks of their careers thus far; yet few, if any, of them claim that Marxian ideals have anywhere been realized, or are likely to be in the short-run future.

I hope you are not all doctrinaire adherents of the *Readers Digest,* but if you are you probably read in the July issue Mr. Bullitt's accusations that the Soviet Union is "unappeasable." You read:

> "The communist creed requires that the aim of the Soviet Union should be to establish Communism throughout the earth . . . That aim is never altered . . . Today all governments, except the Soviet government and its satellites, are working for peace. The Soviet government is working for conquest. It naturally prefers to make conquests without war and impose its dictatorship throughout the world without having to fight. But the democratic states . . . will be obliged to build up national forces *and* international security organizations with sufficient power to enforce peace against all aggressors—including the Soviet Union."

Bullitt's last *few* words, at least, would probably go without saying in federalist circles. However, as Carl Becker would add, it is no bad thing every now and then to examine what goes without saying in order to see whether it is still going.

Before expounding, I owe you a preliminary clarification of my own philosophy (such as it is — at 20 — and before I take my next year's courses at Carleton), and in doing so you will understand why I'm particularly interested in the relationship between Marxism and Federalism. I am a federalist precisely because I am primarily concerned about economic and social problems. With that slant I have come to believe that no long-range steps may be taken toward a better economic and social life so long as the political relations between nations remain unregulated. I therefore regard nationalism as the overwhelming obstacle to be superseded before any effective economic and social action may be undertaken, here at home or in the world. Federalism for me is the only rational political system which has a chance of harnessing the extravagances of nationalism and absurdities of absolute sovereignty.

Because of my concern with economic and social questions, I would be the first to have much in common with many of my friends whose interests are also economic and social, but who put their emphasis *there* as opposed to political systems and institutions, and are therefore not federalists. You know the attitude, and it is one which federalists must learn to *absorb,* not oppose. Our reply is not a denial of the points they raise. Economic and social problems will be ultimate factors in determining the survival value of a world government once it is achieved. But the solutions to these problems cannot be realistically attempted until we have better political forms through which we may operate. Therefore we consider the *emphasis* of these critics temporarily misplaced, but only temporarily. Federalism as a political form

is crucial at the present point in history because it alone can act as a *catalytic agent* which will halt the cut-throat competition of nationalisms in favor of a rational approach to world affairs. We are very much in danger of stumbling into suicide under the sponsorship of atomic bombs, and only a political readjustment which spells some measure of physical security from the atomic threat can stave it off.

I - TRADITIONAL MARXIST DOCTRINE

(*a*) *Dialectical Materialism.*

Doctrinaire Marxism, if there is such a thing, depends — as do most doctrines — on what its individual or collective adherents want to make of it. I could be a Marxist, perhaps I am, without believing that John Strachey represented my position at all when he defined communism as a movement for better plumbing. Neither would I have to agree with Feuerbach when he criticized Marx and Engels a century ago for proclaiming "Der Mensch ist was er isst." (A man *is* what he *eats;* i.e. the stomach is all there is in life.) "Marxists" are inordinately jealous of the right to interpret their master as they see fit. You remember the story of Harold Laski's lecture at the New School for Social Research in New York, when he found himself heckled by communists. When the non-communists in the audience started to hiss the hecklers, the professor from England retorted: "Leave them alone. After all, we are all followers of Marx — they in their way, I in his."

Marxism, in any case, was a philosophy of history and a critique of capitalist industrialism and 19th century political economy, rather than a prophecy of future socialist policy. Marx was far more concerned with the *struggle* than with the goal toward which it tends. Any attempt to forecast in detail the struggle of a future socialist community, or to speculate over the policies of future socialist leaders, was for him bad gambling. A new productive system was bound to involve new institutions which no one could anticipate. Marx was emphatic that the future must settle itself.

The great attempt of his life, however, was to proclaim the broad outlines of the forces and trends which would produce that future. Closely knit to Marx's analysis of capitalism as an economic system, and integrating that criticism as a philosophy of history and life, was the Marxian dialetic. Nothing that Marx originated has been more consistently disputed and vulgarized by the various branches of his heterogeneous followers than the concept of dialectical materialism and the analysis of what Marx called "Historical Process." It was the concept of dialectical materialism that distinguished Marx from his "Utopian" socialist predecessors, Fourier, Proudhon, Owen, et al, and gave to Marxist doctrine its cherished tag, *Scientific* Socialism. We can cover the dialectic with a few general statements, but it provides material enough for a month's assignments in a Political Science course.

Marx borrowed the outline of his philosophy of history from Hegel, changed its motivation and direction completely, but retained Hegel's triadic law as the basis of all historical growth and progress: thesis, antithesis, synthesis. Historically, Marx attemps to explain the growth of movements and institutions in economic terms. Economic phenomena predominantly determine all other historical facts and make it possible to explain them. The "class struggle" is the motive power which underlies the historical process, and it is to the impulses which are at work in the satisfaction of economic demand that significant changes are to be traced. The economic class which controls the "forces of production" in a given economic era — no matter whether it be Asiatic, Classical, Feudal, or Capitalist — calls forth its antithesis, and, as the "forces of production" advance to new stages, a portion of the former "underdog" class rises to unseat the oppressors, and a new class society (synthesis) appears. The crowning feature of the present capitalist era, however, is that class conflicts have been simplified — only two hostile classes remain face to face, the bourgeoisie and the proletariat. By his analysis of capitalism Marx concluded that the inherent trend of the economic forces in capitalist society contained "contradictions" which would set the stage for socialism. He anticipated a concentration of capital into fewer and fewer hands, a consequent growth in the size and poverty of the proletariat, and then with a constantly increasing cycle of capitalist wars and industrial oppression, the class struggle would break into the open, the proletariat would throw off its masters, and since no other class element — no antithesis — would any longer be present, a "classless society" would ipso facto have been established.

For Marx, the economic foundation thus determined legal and political institutions, literature, religion, and art. This was all "superstructure", dependent in the main on the economic substructure ("Unterbau"). Political conflicts are only the superficial evidence of the class conflicts that have existed at every epoch of history. Superior individuals have been able to play prominent roles, but for the most part they have been only unconscious marionettes acting out a drama of whose real significance they were ignorant.

Immediately, however, we arrive at the dilemma, or the apparent dilemma, which has vexed followers of Marx from his time to ours. If any of you have been following the controversy in Dwight Macdonald's monthly magazine, *Politics,* you know that "Marxists" are as turbulent as ever over the precise meaning which dialectical materialism should have for socialists. The crux of the controversy has always been: how can a system which relies on historical inevitability leave any room for ethical aims? Marx both *wanted* socialism, and tried to demonstrate that it was *inevitable.* But is there any virtue in desiring and working for the inevitable? Frequently critics have taken the position that by trying to put socialism on a "scientific" plant, Marx destroyed his reasons for wanting socialism, and it is true that he systematically vilifies the very motives by which he was inspired. If Historical Process is taken as an Absolute, how can socialists demonstrate the superiority of one ideology over another? The ethical dynamic for a socialist movement, say these critics, must come from non-historical values, such as Truth and Justice, rather than from the course of history. A socialist idea is not firmly grounded, they continue, if it does not accept at the very beginning the possibility of non-realization of its goals. The only characteristic of socialism which can make it my duty to work for it is its goodness or its betterness to any alternative, not its "wave-of-the-future" type of dialectical inevitability.

Yet, defenders of the dialectic such as G. D. H. Cole, counter with the following:

> "Marx's materialist conception of history has often been misunderstood. It is far from being merely the doctrine that economic forces are predominant in the direction of social affairs, though this is involved in it. Still less is it the doctrine that individual men act only from material motives, for this is not even involved in it at all."

And Sidney Hook agrees with Cole, saying:

> "The view that economic realities *alone* are the guide to understanding and action is not Marxian and leads to a vulgarization of Marx's theory of historical materialism . . . The simple truth which Marx stressed against the Utopians that ideals and values cannot be pursued for long by men who have no bread has been converted into the proposition that all ideals and values are merely the instruments by which bread is secured."

Both Engels and Marx anticipated the criticisms which Cole and Hook try to meet. Indeed Engels himself made this much of an admission in a letter to a friend:

> "Marx and I ourselves are partly to blame for the fact that our younger disciples at times place more weight on the economic side than is due it. We had to emphasize this central factor because it was denied by our adversaries and there wasn't always time, place, and opportunity to do justice to the other factors which participate in the *reciprocal interaction.*"

But this is the type of acknowledgment on Engels' part which is directed, shall we say, to an intellectual audience. There is no escaping the fact that both Marx and Engels deliberately tried to overemphasize the economic and systematic approach to history, and deliberately overlooked "opportunities" to do justice to other factors. *Why* did two men whose minds were certainly not simple deliberately weigh their arguments so that their proletarian audience would very probably accept dialectical materialism as a simple dogma of faith? The answer itself is to be found in the historical setting in which Marx and Engels worked. The mundane and practical motives, so frequently overlooked, are referred to in Otto Ruhle's biography of Marx. Marx wrote at a time in history when

> ". . . nothing but an act which would bring *encouragement* would save the imperilled cause of the proletariat. A treatment that would overcome the sense of inferiority, a method of education that would re-establish self-confidence and revive self-esteem, was essential. The proletariat needed a miraculous energy that could only be inspired by a great conviction . . . Then came Marx and supplied the inspiration . . . He made the class struggle a law of historical evolution, and depicted socialism as the necessary and logical outcome of that struggle. By placing his doctrine at the disposal of the proletariat, he provided this class with the means for compensating its social sense of inferiority through the practical application of the knowledge thus gained."

For Marx's purposes his deliberate choice of emphasis was admirable: his brilliant economic analysis, and the scope of the dialectic as understood by Cole and Hook, were monumental contributions to economic and social thinking. On another level, a more simple faith in the historic necessity of their task gave new life and mass drive to the workers of the world, upon whom Marx counted to carry his ideals to fruition. Marx did not contradict his own system by saying, as some would have him say, "I predict Socialism, therefore, I believe in it." Rather, what was important to him was not the level of production but the relations among men. He was appalled by oppression and exploitation. He knew, however, that his real

problem was not *what* values to uphold, but *how* to make them fruitful in history. The doctrine of dialectic materialism, then, was not only a new and spectacular analysis of history which Marxists still consider to be valid, but also a *campaign tactic* for world revolution. Both considerations are of tremendous importance still in socialist thinking, and an understanding of both is essential for a federalist approach to Marxism.

(b) Marxist View of War

Following as an immediate corollary to the general Marxian approach to history, is the attitude toward war which that approach implies; the attitude toward war is of course directly significant for federalists, as well.

According to the dialectic, the state, like all other political and ideological factors of real consequence reflected the class struggle, and was therefore merely a convenient tool of the dominant economic group. Governments were instruments to be manipulated by the capitalist class for its own ends. Since it is dependent upon class control for its usefulness, the state "withers away", in Engels' phrase, once the classless society has been firmly established. The "dictatorship of the proletariat" is a temporary measure to last only until the final remnants of bourgeois power have been uprooted and the society is "classless" in toto.

Nationalism is therefore the prerogative of the bourgeoisie. The Communist Manifesto proclaims without hedging: "The workingmen have no country. We cannot take from them what they have not got." War, as an instrument of state policy, is therefore by definition an instrument of capitalist policy. This much follows on the basis of the dialectic, which we have already discussed. It is remarkable, however, that for practical purposes the theory of war in Marxist literature stops at this dialectical definition. Lenin's later additions on imperialism as the "last stage" of a moribund capitalism add little in theory to the simple Marxian assumption that war is an instrument of capitalist competition. One is struck by the superficiality of Marx's ideas about war — especially in contrast to the clear and incisive analysis which he invariably gave to problems he considered significant. "However the war may end," he wrote during the Franco-Prussian War, "it has given the French proletariat practice in arms, and that is the best guarantee of the future." The proletariat has by now had plenty of such practice; our problem is how to get less of it!

Engels, likewise, after a remarkably accurate prediction of the nature and even the line-up of World War I, added:

> ". . . only one result is absolutely certain: general exhaustion and the establishment of the conditions for the ultimate victory of the workingclass . . . This, my lords, princes, and statesmen, is where in your wisdom you have brought old Europe. And when nothing more remains to you but to open the last great war dance — that will suit us all right. The war may perhaps temporarily push us into the background, may wrench from us many a position already conquered; but when you have set free forces which you will be unable to control, things may go as they will: at the end of the tragedy, you will be ruined and the victory of the proletariat will either be already achieved or at any rate inevitable."

Yet, now after two world wars, the victory Engels expected appears to be all too *evitable.* Capitalists may have "set free forces" which they are "unable to control", but the socialists are equally unable to control them. The "general exhaustion" which Engels mentions is exactly that — *general,* including the proletariat. Such mechanistic reasoning sounds fairly fantastic a half-century after it was written.

A similar Marxian illusion is that the victory of one or the other side in a modern war may advance the cause of socialism. Marx and Engels took sides, on this basis, in the American Civil War and in the Franco-Prussian War. This eventually became hardboiled pragmatism at its worst. See, for example, the extraordinary letters Engels wrote to Bebel in 1891 on the proper line to take in the war he saw materializing between Germany and France-Russia. He reasoned that because the German Social Democrats "have the almost absolute certainty of coming to power within ten years," a German victory was essential:

> "The German victory is therefore the victory of the revolution, and if it comes to war we must not only desire victory but further it by every means . . . We must *demand* the general arming of the people."

In sketching out the military strategy of such a war, Engels sounds like a member of the Imperial General Staff. And all of this, of course, in the name of the revolution.

The very simplicity of the attitudes Marx and Engels took toward war shows what a perfunctory interest both took in the whole question. How may such, almost frivolous, attitudes be excused? — Only when we consider again the historical period in which Marx and Engels wrote.

Marxism has never had a well-developed theory of war precisely because its founders were not

pressed by circumstances to view war as a major problem. In the century after Waterloo (1815 - 1914) there was only one war in Europe between first-class powers — the Franco-Prussian War. We tend to forget that the whole body of socialist theory, from the Utopians through Marx, Engels, Proudhon, and Kropotkin, to Luxemburg, Lenin, and Trotsky was built up during the "Hundred Years Peace" after Napoleon's downfall. Since the chronic world warfare of our day was utterly unknown to them, the theoreticians of socialism devoted their attention mainly to the internal class struggle and failed completely to work out a theory of the political significance of war. The gap remains to be filled.

Writing in the atmosphere of Victorian optimism and Darwinian evolution, Marx and Engels were inbred with the twin theories of their day — the perfectibility of man and the inevitability of progress. Indeed, the allegiance of Marx and Engels to such typically psychological sentiments of their age is itself good Marxism. These sentiments might have been bourgeois, too, had Marx or Engels ever really stopped to question them. But the "era of peace and aroma of progress", far from being challenged by the Marxists, were taken over by them — the idea of Progress, in fact, being used as a psychological prop for Historical Materialism.

Leaving, now, the theoretical aspects of Marxism which have the greatest bearing on the issue of world government — the dialectic, and the concept of war — let us review the practical efforts to achieve Marxism in this century.

II - PRACTICAL APPLICATION OF MARXISM

(*a*) *International Socialism before 1914.*

Count de Sales in his book *The Making of Tomorrow* presents the "two greatest universal forces of this century" — nationalism and collectivism — as contradictory elements in world politics. At least before World War I, the point could be made with theoretical accuracy that nationalism was the great "vertical" force that tended to level down and unify social and economic groups within a country (as it surely does, even now), while collectivism, including all the schools of Marxism, was in theory a horizontal force cutting across boundary lines and national allegiances. The theories of Marx and Engels accepted as a fundamental proposition an international unity of the masses, particularly of the industrial workers. The Marx-Engels Manifesto, inviting the workers of the world to unite, encouraged capital to unite also, as Marx had predicted it would. And, as predicted, capitalists generally established their lines of defense on national grounds. The reasons were obvious — it assured them control of the army and armaments; enabled them to appeal to the middle classes, who are always the most rooted element of the population and the most anxious for protection against any outside danger, real or imaginary; finally, nationalism was the chief apology for a close tie-up between industry and government, for if national interest should pre-empt all other considerations, an intimate relationship between business captains and government cabinets was desirable. Therefore up to the advent of fascism and especially Nazism, the bourgeoisie, as Marx would call them, conceived of themselves as being the true representatives of the nation, because in their own eyes they were its most stable and worthy element. At the turn of the century Marx and Engels could have concluded with reason that the "class struggle" was pivoting in great measure on the fundamental opposition of nationalism identified with the interests of the privileged groups, and internationalism identified with the aspirations of the workers.

The great test of international doctrinaire socialism came with the war of 1914. There was no real assurance up to that time that the evolution of the class struggle, as defined by Marx, wasn't taking shape according to prophecies. Socialism was the only doctrine that seemed prepared to launch a frontal attack on the growing peril of extreme nationalism, and to offer an international solution as an alternative. The possibility of a socialist strike against war was not to be discounted in the first decade of the century when socialists were rapidly increasing in numbers and political prestige everywhere. But German Socialists, the most powerful of all, goose-stepped off to war for the Fatherland as soon as the Kaiser proclaimed from the balcony of his Berlin palace, "I know no parties; I know only Germans!" Socialists in all the warring countries rallied to nationalist banners, and the Second International collapsed. Nothing like it has ever been revived.

For three decades before the War of 1914, the Second International had been split apart on tactical grounds. The Continental and British socialist movements generally followed the policy of the German leader Bernstein, called "Revisionism" — believing that the class struggle could be resolved through liberal, parliamentary practices, the organization of mass socialist parties, and election to office of socialist candidates. Vehemently opposed to the Revisionists, and advocating what he claimed to be the true Marxian doctrine of violent revolution, was Lenin, who with his determined

group of kindred spirits carried on a sensational literary and propagandizing campaign from various European havens, notably Switzerland.

(*b*) *The USSR.*

When in 1917 Lenin performed one of the great tactical successes of all time and astutely engineered the Bolshevik revolution, Russia assumed the position of advance-guard of the world revolution. Lenin saw the function of the new communist state to be an active interference in Europe on behalf of revolutionary parties which he believed to be on the brink of success in Germany and Hungary. He stated his position frankly:

> "We live not only in a state but in a system of states. It is inconceivable that the Soviet Republic should continue to exist interminably side by side with imperialist states. Ultimately one or the other must conquer. Pending this development a number of terrible clashes between the Soviet Republic and the bourgeois states must inevitably occur."

As other revolutions abroad gradually failed to materialize, and Civil War and economic pressures at home forced a retreat in strategy, Lenin was compelled by events to retract the announced ambitions of both his economic and foreign programs. Admitting the dictates of expediency and opportunities which had made him the great tactician that he was, Lenin in 1921 spoke of his policy retrogressions as "one step backward in order to take a leap forward."

Under Lenin's successor Stalin, however, the step backward was frozen at least for the short-run future, and the leap forward internationally was indefinitely postponed. Under the watchword of "Socialism in a single country", Stalin in 1926 objectively sought to revive the militant tradition of Russian nationalism as a bulwark of state policy toward dissident peasant and personal-political elements in the USSR. The direction and control of the Kremlin over the Comintern, or Third International, continued; but it was maintained more as a springboard for future action than a cardinal effort to return to Lenin's active attempts to foment world revolution.

The conclusion is almost inescapable that circumstances dictated Stalin's course. At any rate the combination which resulted — *Russian Communism,* with the double implication of that phrase — uniting, as it did, the two most explosive forces in world politics, nationalism and collectivism, has become a uniquely dynamic force in world affairs. One could have predicted decades ago that whoever conducted Russia out of its backwardness would have influence on a world scale. But what could scarcely have been surmised was that the revolution would place at the helm of this potentially powerful *national* state men who were committed to the most starkly realistic doctrine of *internationalism* that modern times have conceived. For whatever reasons and for whatever ends, it is clear that two such dynamic forces, once merged by circumstances, would inevitably be merged for matters of international policy.

There is little point in tackling such unanswerable questions as: Is Stalin a Marxist; Is Russia Communistic; or Is Russia Totalitarian. William Bullitt, who is one observer and not a disinterested one, is quite sure the answer is yes to all three. Others, perhaps not less disinterested, are convinced that the following factors envision a Marxist future and a gradual relinquishing of totalitarian controls, once the Kremlin feels assured of the disappearance of external and internal threats:

(a) The USSR is already Marxist in these essential institutions — the land and factories belong to the people, production is planned for use, the old upper and middle classes have been uprooted.

(b) The Stalin regime, admitting that the USSR falls far short of Marxist goals, nevertheless keeps the educational and home-propaganda policy of the government keyed to an expectation of those goals in the future.

(c) The roots of Russian Bolshevism are laid in *Russian* soil. The course of the revolution and the forms of the Soviet state are unmistakably molded by factors which point far back into the Russian Middle Ages. An estimate of any political program, particularly one as drastic as communism, must be made within the historical and cultural framework in which it exists.

"Russia has no more unemployment than Sing Sing, and for the same reason," says Monsignor Fulton Sheen of Washington. I can admit his point, and with a slight change of emphasis also quote Mortimer Adler:

> "Historians of the future will regard the emancipation and enlightenment of the Russian masses as a consequence of the industrialization of Russia. The Communist revolution will be credited with initiating that process and with bringing it to its socially desirable fruition with less hardship and misery than accompanied the industrial revolution in England, and in less time than England took to accomplish the social and political reforms which industrialism makes possible."

And Harold Laski goes even further without admitting a loss of balance:

> "The rules of the Soviet Union are, in my view, seeking to reshape the behavior of man by a method of social organization which denies the claims made in the Western world on behalf of the acquisitive society. I do not for one moment argue that, in their effort at this reshaping, they have not often made immense blunders and committed fantastic cruelties. I accept the ugliness of all these things; and I do not even attempt to excuse them. But those who set out to judge their import must see them in their historical proportion. Those who accept the Christian faith do not regard the strains upon its record as the disproof of its insight."

As a matter of emphases, these various attitudes in the Western World are of extreme importance, as we shall see, in complicating the present politics of the West toward Russia, and may complicate future eventualities even more. But these attitudes are complicating in formulating international policy *not* because it is impossible to make accurate evaluations about the praiseworthiness of the Soviet economic experiment, but because in its foreign relations Russia behaves precisely as if it were the fatherland of the Russians as well as the fatherland of the world proletariat — and furthermore, if preferences have been shown for one of the two children in the father's household, it seems clear that the world proletariat will be the first orphaned.

The paternal attitude, however, is to keep both children under the Moscow roof. Russian foreign policy is conducted under the most happy and convenient theoretical conditions imaginable: a nationalist-expansionist program objectively identical with the interests pure Russian nationalism would have had under the Czars or any bourgeois exploiters, coupled with the unique advantage of comradely support from enthusiastic proletarians the world over, who have been convinced that the Stalinist line is true, that Russian and Marxian interests coincide.

From a theoretician's standpoint, it may be interesting to speculate which is the means and which the end — communism or nationalism, in Russia. From a practical standpoint, such speculation is not constructive. The Kremlin, as long as it knows what it's doing, will keep the two factors fused. They know well that observers abroad will be analytically and psychologically unable to rationalize the "distinctions" between the nationalist and world-revolutionary activities of the USSR. They know that Russian nationalism, as opposed to other nationalisms, has a competitive advantage that is immeasurable. They will be the least inclined to destroy the mystical union which makes a good Communist today synonymous with an active apologist for Russian foreign policy.

Converts to the support of the USSR, you see, do not arrive at their conversion by direct-method: they are ideologically attracted, and then politically trapped. The fact that Russian nationalism and Communist internationalism have so developed that there is no conflict between them is not to convict the Russians, at least, of hypocrisy. They themselves can conceive of Communism only as something that moves *out from* the Soviet Union. To some of us, international Communism seems to be the tool of Russian nationalism, but the very phenomena that support this view convince the faithful that Russian nationalism is the instrument of world Communism. When Stalin promotes a face-lifting job on Ivan the Terrible to solidify nationalist sentiments at home, and then restores the Orthodox Church with the expectation that it will help spread Communism in the Balkans — when he refers in the same speech to "Capitalist encirclement" and "our motherland" one can conclude that for his intentions, whatever they may be, the Marxist ideology and the ambitions of the czars are harmoniously blended.

And the communists abroad feel so certain of the point toward which their primary efforts should be directed that they have subserviated the fight for socialism in their own countries, frequently, to become instruments for the strengthening of Soviet sentiment on their own stamping grounds. With a sublime callousness to consistency, they follow the political gymnastics of the Kremlin with utterly uncritical approval. One of our better wags has said recently, "The Communist line changes so often that it has remained less faithful to the ideologies of Karl than to the imponderabilities of Harpo!"

But the two faucets of Soviet strength are not unqualified in their success record. Because on point of achievement the USSR's nationalist success has outweighed its practical achievement of communism, a growing number of liberal critics abroad, delving deep into the ranks of the proletariat, are becoming increasingly hesitant about supporting a nation whose economic experiment, alone, they would have applauded. As Sir Bernard Pares has put it, "Communism in Russia . . . What a situation for a fanatic: Fanaticism at half-cock!" And what we have just now said is already the beginning of an evaluation of Marxism's current significance in reference to major world problems.

(*The second part of this article will appear in the April issue of the* YALE POLITICAL JOURNAL.)

PRESIDENTIAL SUCCESSION AND THE PARTY SYSTEM

by Gerald R. Hegarty

THE checks and balances of the American constitution have made possible the smooth working of the governmental machinery only when the same political party controls all branches of the government. The writers of our constitution however, did not forsee the party system; hence the division of rule when the personnel of one branch changes parties before the others or at a swifter rate than the others. The present situation in which the control of both houses of Congress has already gone to the opposition party presents us with such a situation in which, if history is my guide, it will not be possible for Congress and the President to work together.

Many proposals have been made to correct this situation. A partial proposal was made by Mr. Truman himself, when, on succeeding to the presidency, he asked Congress to make the Speaker of the House his successor, and the President-pro tempore of the Senate second in line for the presidency. This suggestion has not been carried out, but it is more than likely that, with Republican control of Congress, it will be; and Republican leaders have already indicated their intention of reviving the suggestion. This proposal is only a partial solution to the conflict between the executive and the legislature, since it would give the presidency to the majority party only on the death or inability of the minority president.

Other solutions are of a more long range nature. Perhaps the best is that of Thomas K. Finletter, who in his book, *Can Representative Government Do the Job?,* proposed the election of President and both houses of Congress for a six year term subject to dissolution at any time by either presidential order or vote of Congress. Another long range proposal is the election of the President and Congress for four year terms, so that there could be no loss of administration strength at midterm, since it is the midterm elections which result in party stalemates. Both of these programs would tend to reduce the quality of the Senate, since the longer term for Senator, which now makes the office attractive, would no longer exist. In order to put either of these plans into practice, it would of course be necessary to amend the constitution, a task which is itself long range.

One suggestion which would solve the immediate problem is an idea which has never enjoyed wide publicity until very recently. That is the plan whereby the President and Vice-President, when there is one, resign after having appointed an opposition successor to the presidency as Secretary of State. The recent proposal that Mr. Truman do just that has met with superficial opposition. Opponents of the plan say that to do so would be walking out on the job. Actually the defeat of the President's party at the recent election indicates that he would no more be walking out on a responsibility than if he himself had been defeated at the election. It is not walking out to turn an office over to the winners. Far from harming the government, such an act would make possible much greater unity of rule than otherwise. It is also argued that presidential resignation would be changing the constitution by executive order. Why this is a reason for not doing it is difficult to see. The constitution has always been changed by presidential acts, as well as by Supreme Court decisions. When an executive order can improve the working of the constitution, and bring the administration closer to the people, then it is certainly a desirable method of making such a needed change. One of the loudest objections to resignation is the contention that it would be difficult to decide who should succeed to the presidency, and it would not be fair for the leader of one party by himself to choose the President of the other party, and thus probably to decide its nominee for the next presidential election. This objection is also superficial. There are various ways by which the President could find out whom the opposition desired as its leader. Perhaps the best way would be to call a joint conference of the Republican National Committee, the Republican Senators, and the Republican Congressmen, and ask them to choose the President's successor. Nothing could be more democratic, and a majority of the Senate would have to be satisfied with the choice.

Since there is little weight to these superficial objections, it is well to examine the real underlying

reasons for the opposition to the proposal. On the Democratic side there are two leading reasons for opposing resignation. The first reason is that the power of the President can be used to prevent complete Republican control, to give the Democrats a voice in the government which they would not otherwise have. Chiefly it would mean that appointments would not be filled with personnel completely objectionable to the Democrats, and also that the President would be able to veto any legislation undesirable to the Democrats. A second reason for Democratic opposition to the proposal is the control of patronage which the presidency gives them. This control serves to hold together the party organization in hard times, and strengthens the party for future activity. Also, of course, the men who control patronage hate to give it up unless they have to.

On the Republican side the real reasons for opposing the plan may be threefold. First they might want the Democrats to continue to take the blame and responsibility for the many difficulties of reconversion which will continue for the next year or two. Second, it is possible they want to make sure of getting the presidency in 1948 by doing everything in their power between now and then to embarass the administration, to stalemate the government, to obstruct administration policy, and thereby promote the interest of the Republican party at the expense of the welfare of the American people. Third, they may want two years to prepare for coming into power, by working out a consistent policy, and by organizing their support behind some definite policy, so that they will have something to offer when they do get into power.

To consider these reasons in the light of what is of greatest benefit to the American people as a whole, it is necessary to consider the possibilities and probabilities of the next two years. In general one of two things will probably happen in each phase of governmental policy. First there may be cooperation, compromise, coalition, and bi-partisan action. Second there may be conflict, obstruction, and disagreement between the two policies. The first of these policies is hinted at by the bi-partisan foreign policy of the recent past, and by the words which administration and opposition leaders have exchanged regarding their working together in the new congress. The second possibility is suggested by all of past history.

In case the principle of bi-partisan action and coalition is extended to all public policy, we will have a situation which is itself a living contradiction of the spirit of the two party system. According to this system, it is desirable for one party to rule, and to hold the responsibility for its rule, while the other constantly criticises and keeps the ruling party on its toes, preventing excessive abuse of power and lack of contact with public opinion. Whenever the party in power gets too far out of gear with the public opinion on which it depends, there is the possibility of a change of parties, in which the opposition comes into power, and the ruling party goes into opposition and criticises the party in power. Such a situation is found wherever the two party system works well, and has been often found in this country. Nevertheless the cooperation principle depends for its working upon the denial of the normal working of the two party system. Whenever there has been a coalition there has not been effective criticism of the government. There has been no alternative for the public to choose in preference to the ruling group. There has been no adequate check on the coalition to keep it closely in touch with public opinion. A coalition resembles more a one party dictatorship than it does a two party democracy. Lacking the criticism necessary to democracy and healthy government, the coalition is always bad, and dangerous. In Britain the majority party has a clear mandate in the field of foreign policy and must face constant criticism for its handling of foreign policy by the opposition in parliament. In this country we have a bi-partisan foreign policy, no criticism, and no opposition, and as a result no one knows anything about our foreign policy, it has become difficult to form an intelligent opinion regarding foreign affairs, and to an extent we have no foreign policy. The only criticism and objection to the bi-partisan policy comes from a minority faction of one party, which receives almost universal condemnation for interfering with national unity in its criticism of the established policy. The experience of democratic governments universally condemns the coalition, and if it is extended to all phases of our public policy, all great value of our party system will be lost.

The other possibility, that of conflict between the rival branches of our government, is a more likely eventuality. Here also, however, the great difficulty of lack of clearcut party responsibility and party policy will be at least as present as under a bi-partisan system. American experience tells us, if we can learn anything from history, that when the opposition controls the congress, government stalemates. In recent times we have the examples of 1919-20, and 1931-32. The prize of the presidency which the opposition seeks is too great for the subordination of its ambition to the welfare of the country. United more than the administration party in seeking its goal, the opposition always does all in its power to oppose, embarass, and subvert the administration. We may safely reach the

tentative conclusion that the next two years will be like all cases in the past where our government has been stalemated by such twilight zones of divided rule. The result then, of the change of Congressional control, will probably be a lack of party responsibility which is bad for our democratic system, and a lack of clearcut policy which is bad for our entire society.

Hence we see that the result of the present political situation is a bad one from the point of view of the people as a whole. One might expect consequently that the result would also be bad from the point of view of the political parties competing for public favor. Since most of the opposition to the plan comes from Democratic circles, let us examine Democratic objections in the light of our political future. As far as patronage is concerned, the long range interest of the party in this regard can best be served by a policy designed to keep the Democrats in power the longest part of a period of time. Getting out of the present squeeze is likely to do more in the long run for continued Democratic rule than staying in power and taking the blame for what an opposition Congress does. By resigning now, President Truman will give his party a chance to get back in power sooner, and stay back in longer, than if he stays in office and makes a long Republican era inevitable.

The other reason for not resigning, the use of the veto power, deserves more weight. It is thoroughly possible that the Republicans, drunk with newly acquired power, and not having yet acquired the responsibility and clearly formulated program necessary for rule, will attempt to enact restrictive labor legislation, and to build tariff walls, thus setting off another international tariff war. Such an eventuality would wreck all the progress made by the labor movement in the past few decades, and would wreck the slowly built up increasingly free trade policies of several governments. Such actions would be irresponsible and dangerous to a great degree for society as a whole. By remaining in office Mr. Truman could veto the Republicans' crippling amendments to the Wagner Act, as well as legislation crippling the reciprocal trade agreements and restoring high tariffs. By so doing he would serve the American people well, I think, despite the many disadvantages which would result from the stalemate period. The use of the presidential veto is the only reason why it would be worthwhile for Mr. Truman to continue as President of the United States.

This reason is of sufficient value to make it desirable for the President to continue in office until more can be understood of the Republican legislative program. If the times comes when the conservative coalition in Congress can override his veto on some question greatly concerning the welfare of the American people, then it would be foolish for President Truman to continue in office. When the veto fails to stop the opposition, then the time has come for the constitution to be changed by the executive order, in order that the party *ruling* America shall assume responsibility ity for its acts.

ORGANIZED LABOR AND POLITICAL ACTION

by Martin B. Dworkis

NUMEROUS reasons have been advanced for the Republican victory in the 1946 elections but one note predominates. Newspapers and commentators have in large part ascribed the voting change to public resentment against union lapor and political action.[1] If correct, the truth of such observations will undoubtedly influence the future conduct of political activities of organized labor.

A cursory examination of the election results seems to support the contentions of those who toll the end of a strong labor political policy. Except in New York City where the American Labor Party rolled to a new high of over 450,000 votes, "labor votes" seemed unable to counter the strong tide in any appreciable measure. Such labor stalwarts as Senators Guffey of Pennsylvania, Tunnell of Delaware, Walsh of Massachusetts, and Huffman of Ohio were retired despite strong support by the CIO-PAC, the AFL and the progressives generally. Other labor-supported candidates in New York, California, Idaho, and Washington were unable to buck the Republican surge. In state and local elections, similar results were apparent. A more fundamental analysis, however, shows that long-range factors are in effect which cannot be placed at the door of the political and economic activities of organized labor.

Despite the allegations that the balloting was a protest against labor, the history of American politics indicates rather that the vote was the traditional result of alarm against governmental interference in business. The crisis in the national economy that lifted Franklin Roosevelt to the Presidency and the continuing difficulties and personal magnetism that maintained his power had, in many minds, given way in the recent campaign to the need for less regulation. *"Ne pas trop gouverner"* is still an important and significant fact in the political thinking of American citizenry. The same reaction against continuing strong governmental controls that is currently apparent was noticeable in the latter periods of the administrations of other "popular" Presidents, Jefferson, Jackson, Cleveland, Theodore Roosevelt and Wilson. The "forgotten man" has been supplanted, as so often in the past, by the fears inherent in the nature of American business enterprise.[2]

The opposition to organized labor's activities in the political arena comes from within as well as without the labor movement. Still adhering to the traditional Gompers policy, first enunciated in 1886, of rewarding friends and defeating the enemies of labor, the American Federation of Labor works exclusively within its own membership, ignores primaries, avoids publicity of its activities and is interested only in the politicians' attitudes toward labor issues. Its lobby in Washington, D. C., seeks to secure a governmental policy of no interference with the possible exceptions of child, female and convict labor restrictions and, of necessity, restraints upon the judicial interference with the processes of collective bargaining. It numbers its political "friends" in both major parties. On the other hand, the Congress of Industrial Organizations through its Political Action Committee, headed by the soft-spoken, efficient chairman, Jack Kroll, has ignored these precepts by advocating and supporting government controls and regulations regarding minimum wages, maximum hours, collective bargaining rights, by organizing for the primary selections of major party candidates through precinct and ward wherever organized labor is in sufficient strength to warrant the time and expenditures necessary, by attempting to secure a maximum of publicity and by uniting with small business men, professional and civic groups for community-wide cooperation and political activity.

Organized labor's entrance into the political sphere is not new. The economic conditions that caused the formation of the first unions in the late 1820's also saw the creation of Workingmen's Parties in the large Eastern cities. The influence of these groups on progressive legislation, particularly

1—An outstanding example of this mode of thought can be found in Arthur Krock's column in the New York Times *for November 10, 1946, page E3. A somewhat more reasonable analysis is presented in the Editorial comment in the* New York Post *for November 8, 1946.*

2—In his introduction to "The American Presidency", Harold J. Laski lists these as the "fear of governmental regulation in general, the timidity and inertia of property before economic innovation, the depressing effect upon business enterprise of the level of taxation usually implicit in any economic innovation that comes from government." New York: Harper, 1940, p. 17.

the extension of public education, was very important in those earlier days of our history. The attitude of American courts in prescribing unions as conspiracies in restraint of trade, a concept derived from English common law, was a fundamental factor in labor's struggle to secure legislation designed to equalize bargaining power in terms of workers' solidarity against employer wealth, ownership and management. The efforts continued until the last decade, finding, it is hoped, an end to "government by injunction" through the provisions of the Norris-LaGuardia Act of 1932. While the AFL has refused to support or endorse a party, its backing of LaFollette in 1924 for the Presidency was in virtual effect an endorsement of a political party. In addition, the formation of the Farmer-Labor parties in the Mid-West and of the CIO-dominated Labor's Non-Partisan League, which succeeded in electing unionists in over 80 municipal elections in Pennsylvania, New York and Ohio, in 1936, has provided an impetus to the current movement of labor in political circles.

With the AFL remaining aloof from the hurley-burley of everyday political organizing and action, the major role in community political work is being undertaken by the CIO through its creature, the CIO-PAC. Organized along precinct-ward lines, long familiar to the observer of the American political system, the CIO-PAC has participated in two major elections in its three years of existence. Its principles, widely promulgated through "The People's Program", stress the preservation of the war-time unity of the Big 3, the consistent international cooperation through the United Nations to solve atomic energy control problems, relief of the starving peoples of Europe and the recognition of the demands of the colonial populations. Its domestic program is equally all-embracing, aiming at a policy of full employment, adequate housing, continuation of price controls, particularly on rent, and an extension in the social welfare and education activities of the national and state governments. It has unhesitatingly condemned all attacks on minority groups or discrimination against individuals on racial or religious grounds.[3] To publicize its activities and program, the CIO-PAC distributed over 50 million pamphlets in 1944 and over 25 million in the 1946 campaign. It turned out radio scripts, posters, jive recordings and song albums in the thousands. It organized sound trucks, door-bell ringers and automobile squads to take union members, their families and sympathizers to the polls. To no small extent, in the large cities, the CIO-PAC and not the Democratic Party, spurred the labor turnout and community support, such as it was, to Democratic candidates.

Even greater attention and activity is being planned for the Presidential campaign in 1948. The co-ordinating committee of the National Conference of Progressives, of which the CIO-PAC is one of the three principal sponsors, has already gone on record as opposing a new national party, as intending to work within the structure of the major parties (with the probable exception of New York City and State where the American Labor Party has demonstrated unusual strength), and of vastly increasing the budget precinct organization and political activities generally of the sponsoring groups. A new tone in labor's political activities is apparent also in the announcement of the CIO-PAC that it will devote the next two years to educating the voters to the possibilities inherent in the primary system of selection of candidates of both parties.

Organized labor will meet widespread opposition in its political campaigning, as well as in its economic battles in the years to come. The smear campaign against the PAC, carried on by such agencies as the Senate Committee to Investigate Campaign Expenditures, will undoubtedly continue with increased vigor. A concerted drive on the legislative gains of organized labor, particularly the National Labor Relations Act, will probably be one of the basic designs of the new Republican 80th Congress. A strong support will be found for revisions in the representatives of the Democratic South. More important, it is becoming increasingly apparent that the CIO itself faces a bitter struggle for existence. Open warfare between the CIO unions and management is on the increase. The AFL with its craft-union basis is better able to withstand the turmoil of depression-inflation cycles. Economists, anticipating an early depression, possibly this spring, also believe that any cutback in production will hit the industrial unions first and hardest. Whether the CIO can weather the threatening storm will depend in large part on the solidarity of its members. Increasing support for the CIO-PAC is likely to come from the ranks of the independent voter as well as of labor if a spiralling economy followed by a recession breaks the real wages of the unorganized as well as the organized labor groups. On the other hand, the disintegrations of the CIO, which is not a remote possibility if the union-busting tactics of Big Business and their Congressional allies succeed, would end the CIO-PAC and further reduce the voice of organized labor in the American political scene.

3—A comprehensive statement of the CIO-PAC position can be found in the New Republic *for April 29, 1946, volume 114, page 598. Copies of the CIO-PAC pamphlet, "The People's Program for 1946" can be secured free on request from the national offices.*

PALESTINE IN CRISIS

by Oscar Gray and Alan Y. Naftalin

ON NOVEMBER 2, 1917, Britain's Foreign Secretary, A. J. Balfour, sent the following letter to Lord Rothschild:

"I have much pleasure in conveying to you, on behalf of His Majesty's Government, the following declaration of sympathy with Jewish Zionist aspirations which has been submitted to and approved by the Cabinet:

"His Majesty's Government view with favour the establishment in Palestine of a national home for the Jewish people, and will use their best endeavours to facilitate the achievement of this object, it being clearly understood that nothing shall be done which may prejudice the civil and religious rights of existing non-Jewish communities in Palestine or the rights and political status enjoyed by the Jews in any other country.

"I shall be grateful if you would bring this declaration to the knowledge of the Zionist Federation."

This, the Balfour Declaration, was what Zionists had been seeking for twenty years and they then believed that it was a complete fulfillment of their aspirations; it would have been just that had it been implemented in the spirit in which it was written.

Zionists the world over had since the 1880's worked for the establishment of Palestine as a Jewish national home because they believed that it was the only way in which Jewish culture could be preserved and made to flourish again. They believed that it was the only solution, partial or complete, of the Jewish problem in Europe; they feared that if substantial numbers of Jews were not able to leave Eastern Europe, where anti-semitism was even then virulent, it would not be many years before violent outbreaks of persecution would become widespread.

In the years prior to the second World War, for reasons that will be discussed later, immigration to Palestine was less than had been envisioned and the holocaust burst upon European Jewry sooner and with much greater intensity than the most pessimistic had imagined.

According to the best reports, between five and six million Jews were hanged, gassed, burned or starved to death in Europe in the last eight years; of the six million who lived in 1939 between the Soviet border and the Rhine, only 1,050,000 were still alive on V-E day. Most of these people and many in the rest of Europe and in Arab lands in the Middle East desire to emigrate to Palestine. They have been subjected to the most devastating persecution in the history of minkind; they have neither the spirit nor the desire to return to the plague-spots where their families were killed and where, before the war, anti-semitism was in many respects even more violent than in Germany. They have been tortured as Jews for generations in Eastern Europe and now many of them can feel no allegiance to the countries in which they lived and were oppressed. The only bond they have is with those who share the characteristic which set them apart for slaughter—their Jewishness. They cannot go back to the unmarked graves of their families; they can trust no country in which they are an undesired minority; they consider themselves expatriate citizens of a Jewish National Home in Palestine. According to a recent study of the subject there are between six hundred thousand and one million five hundred thousand people who will wish to go to Palestine between 1945 and 1955. It is in the light of the plight and the desires of these victims of Hitler that the political situation in Palestine must be considered.

World interpretation of the meaning of the Balfour Declaration shortly after it was issued contrasts sharply with qualifications later developed by the British Colonial Office. President Wilson, who had approved the declaration before its publication, said on March 3, 1919: "....the Allied Nations, with the fullest concurrence of our own government and people, are agreed that in Palestine

shall be laid the foundations of a Jewish Commonwealth." France and Italy concurred in supporting the project.

In 1938, David Lloyd George, who had been Prime Minister from 1916 to 1922, made the following statement: ". . .it was contemplated that when the time arrived for according representative institutions to Palestine, if the Jews had meanwhile responded to the opportunity afforded them . . . and had become a definite majority of the inhabitants, then Palestine would thus become a Jewish Commonwealth. The notion that Jewish immigration would have to be artificially restricted in order to ensure that the Jews should be a permanent minority never entered the heads of anyone engaged in framing the policy. That would have been regarded as unjust and as a fraud on the people to whom we were appealing."

T. E. Lawrence, who led the Arab revolt against the Turks, wrote and spoke warmly in support of the Zionist aspirations. And on March 3, 1919, Emir Feisal (later King of Iraq) wrote a letter to Felix Frankfurter, stating: "The Arabs, especially the educated among us, look with deepest sympathy on the Zionist movement. Our deputation here in Paris is fully acquainted with the proposals submitted yesterday by the Zionist Organization to the Peace Conference and we regard them as moderate and proper. We will offer the Jews a hearty welcome home."

It was in this atmosphere that the League of Nations in 1923 established for Palestine a mandate which included the Balfour Declaration in its preamble; the mandatory power, Great Britain, was directed to facilitate Jewish immigration into Palestine and to encourage the settlement of immigrants upon the land. Further, a Jewish agency was established to co-operate with Britain in matters affecting the establishment of the national home. This mandate was approved by 52 nations of the world, including the United States. Britain was chosen as the mandatory power at the express wish of the Zionists.

The development of Arab opposition to the Zionist aspirations was considered probable at the time of the establishment of the mandate, although its magnitude may have been underestimated inasmuch as the Arabs were to be granted very large, underpopulated independent countries of their own. And Palestine constituted only about 1 per cent. of the Arab lands liberated from the Turks. Since Palestine had never been specifically promised to the Arabs and the need of the Jewish people was so urgent, it was felt that it would be more just for the Arabs to give up their nationalistic claims for a majority in Palestine, retaining full civil, religious and cultural freedom, than for the Jews to have no home at all.

If the Arabs had been convinced from the beginning that the British were prepared to stand squarely behind the Mandate, they would not have been encouraged to continue active opposition to the Zionist program; it is probable that they would have co-operated to make the best of the existing situation. They found, however, after a campaign of riots and terrorism, that the British government could be coerced into withdrawing from its mandatory obligations.

In 1920 and 1921, Arab extremists started rioting, and in August 1921, the British government lopped off some 37,400 square miles of Palestine and established Trans-Jordan with Sherif Abdallah as its Emir, leaving Western Palestine with some 10,400 square miles in which a Jewish national home was to be established. In 1922, the British government repudiated all commitments for the establishment of a Jewish state. In 1929 and 1936 more Arab uprisings occurred and after each the British government retreated farther from its position as enunciated in the Balfour Declaration and the Mandate. Finally, in 1939, a British White Paper established the following immigration policy:

> "Jewish immigration during the next five years will be at a rate which, if the economic absorptive capacity permits, will bring the Jewish population up to approximately one-third of the total population of the country. Taking into account an expected normal increase of the Arab and Jewish populations and the number of illegal Jewish immigrants now in the country, this would allow of admission, as from the beginning of April this year, of some 75,000 immigrants over the next five years . . . After the period of five years, no further Jewish immigration will be permitted unless the Arabs of Palestine are prepared to acquiesce in it."

Thus, what would have been fraud to Lloyd George and his Cabinet became the official British policy and continued all through the war years. In the Balkans thousands of Jews had facilities available for escape; officials of the puppet governments were responsive to bribery and underground Jewish organizers could purchase tramp steamers to transport the refugees to Palestine. When they arrived, however, the ships were not permited to discharge passengers who did not have entrance visas, but were turned back either to return to Nazi Europe or to float aimlessly about the Mediterranean until they struck mines and went down. Memories of ships like the *Struma* and the *Patria* have understandably embittered the attitude of the Zionists toward the British, who they feel were directly responsible for the murder of many thousands of Jews who could otherwise have been rescued.

Along with these immigration restrictions, the White Paper of 1939 (which was declared illegal by the Permanent Mandates Commission of the League of Nations) included severe restrictions on the sale of Arab lands to Jews. Ostensibly for the purpose of protecting Arab peasants from exploitation, it obviously was intended principally to prevent any further Zionist settlement in Palestine, for it permitted transfer of land in those areas which the Jews already had colonized most intensively and prohibited sale of land which is most sparsely settled. The Jews object to it because it introduced statutory discrimination against them and prevents reclamation of vast expanses of uninhabited waste land which the Arabs themselves are unable and unwilling to cultivate.

Despite these restrictions, the Jewish population has increased in Palestine from 65,000 in 1919 to approximately 600,000 today, as compared with an increase in the Arab population from 515,000 to 1,064,000 during the same period. The Jews occupy at present about 6 per cent. of the land of Palestine and some 14 per cent. of the tillable land, most of which was considered untillable before the Jews settled there. According to Dr. Walter Clay Lowdermilk, Assistant Chief of the U. S. Soil Conservation Service, Palestine can, within the next few years, easily absorb some three or four million more immigrants into a normal, self-sufficient economy.

In the light of all this, and especially considering the plight of the displaced and stateless Jews of Europe, Zionists in this country and in Palestine have been exerting all their energies in the attempt to change the British policy with regard to Palestine and to make it similar to that enunciated in the Mandate.

This effort has emphasized a division of Zionist opinion which has existed since the beginning of the British appeasement of the Arabs. One group of Zionists, largely composed of the Revisionist party, believes that the maximum number of Jews possible must be taken into the country immediately and, taking a page from the Arabs' book, that only strong resistance, by violence if necessary, to the British policy can change that policy significantly. They point to the fact that self-restraint and co-operation with the British for the last twenty-five years has failed to accomplish the Zionist objectives and that if a change is not produced very soon, the European Jews will be forced back to the lands in which they lived prior to the war, despite strong anti-semitism in these areas. Their only other alternative is to die.

The other group, made up largely of Labor Zionist organizations, insist that the intentions of the British government are generally good and that only diplomacy can accomplish the desired end. They deplore the use of "terror" as a political weapon. This has until recently been the official position of World Zionism. In the recent World Zionist Congress held in Basle, however, the Zionist Organization of America reversed its previous attitude and came out against participation in the proposed London Conference unless the British government makes certain concessions concerning civil liberties and Jewish control of immigration as a basis for the discussions. In this, the ZOA was strongly supported by the Revisionists and other parties, and its policy won acceptance by a small majority of the Congress.

This reversal seems to indicate that the Morrison-Grady plan for partition has disillusioned many erstwhile anglophiles among the Zionists. In brief, the plan proposed the division of Palestine into three regions — a central administrative zone and the Negeb desert zone controlled by the British, and supposedly independent Jewish and Arab districts. The British would control immigration, transportation, communication and defense. The Jews would get an area of less than 1500 square miles, governed by an elected assembly, the Speaker of which (appointed by the British) would have an absolute veto over all legislation. He would be assisted by an Executive Council, also appointed by the British. Finally, all actions of this "autonomous" government would be subject to revision by the British High Commissioner. The Zionists consider this proposal a farce and cannot undertake negotiations on the basis of a plan so far short of their minimum demands.

While Congresses and conferences are being held, in Palestine tension is rising rapidly. The Arabs are unwilling to make any concessions, as indeed they have been since 1922, and many Jews have reached the conclusion that resistance of a military nature is the only solution for them. They recognize the fact that the British Army and Navy could, with relatively little difficulty, defeat their attempt a revolution; but they feel that the British are not willing lightly to enter into a full military campaign against a people who have suffered so much, especially since open warfare would probably throw U. S. public opinion behind the Jews. They further point to the results the Arabs have attained from riots and uprisings and they reach the conclusion, on the basis of recent history, that the British will give in to violence but not to justice, legality or the claims of honor. This idea, supported by the Revisionists, the Irgun Zvai Leumi and the Stern group, two underground activist groups, is gaining both support and condemnation in Palestine and in world Zionist circles. On the one hand, the Revisionists, who polled about one per cent. of the vote in Zionist elections a few years ago, received 23 per cent. of the vote in Palestine in the last election held during the summer of 1946, thus becoming the second largest party in the country. On the other hand, leaders of other Zionist groups throughout the world and in Palestine have condemned these two underground groups vigorously; the largest underground defense group Haganah which has a membership of some 60 to 80 thousand, has at various times been reported to have threatened to kidnap the leaders of the other two groups. This it has not done to date, however, and since the trend of Zionist policy appears favorable to more rather than less resistance, it seems doubtful that these threats will be carried out.

The positions of the Arabs and the British at this time must be given brief mention. The Arabs, speaking generally, are out for all they can get. They claim the right to have Palestine as an independent Arab state just as are the other six states that make up the Arab lands. They are unwilling to make any concessions, and any decision that falls short of this desire will have to be imposed on them. On the other hand, they are unable to contest seriously any adverse judgment because militarily the total of all the troops under Arab command in the Near East just about equals the strength of Haganah. Moreover, these forces are largely needed, according to Mr. Nathan, for the maintenance of the rulers' control over their own lands. These armies are badly trained, poorly equipped and largely dependent on Britain for supplies and leadership.

Britain today has a vital interest in Palestine from an economic and strategic point of view. Palestine is located geographically very close to the center of Britain's life line and Empire. With her retreat from Egypt and the establishment of independent Arab states, the strategic significance of Palestine has increased. Furthermore, the development of oil reserves in the Arab lands, combined with growing American and Russian influences in those areas has intensified her concern with preserving her security in the Near East. For all these reasons, Britain feels that she cannot relinquish control over Palestine. How far she is willing to modify her ideas concerning the amount of control she considers an absolute minimum is problematical. If she is not pressed, she will give up little or nothing. If the British find it inconvenient to fight for the *status quo,* they may be willing to settle for military bases and perhaps some sort of control over the pipelines. Despite suggestions by Winston Churchill, she will probably not turn the whole problem over to the United Nations.

Against these Arab and British claims to Palestine, the Zionists point to the urgent need of the stateless Jews in Europe, who cannot remain where they are; they must go somewhere and there is no place for them but Palestine. It seems very improbable that the United States will welcome a great influx of immigrants, and it is ridiculous to send people who have survived a decade of extermination off to pioneer in Guatemala or Kenya. Especially is the absurd when there is plenty of room for them in Palestine and when the Jews already there are anxious and able to rehabilitate them. It is universally conceded that Jewish reclamation of the country has benefited the Arabs tremendously, giving them the best health and the highest standard of living in the Near East. Dr. Lowdermilk believes that only through continued Jewish immigration can the Arab peasants be raised from the peonage under which they have labored for centuries. He says: "In the midst of general decadence in the Near East, there is hope in Palestine; hope made real by the Jewish colonies which are showing the most remarkable devotion to reclamation of land that I have seen in any country of the New or Old World. The result of their efforts thus far is an inspiration and splendid achievement. Unknown to themselves, these colonies have laid the foundations for a Greater Palestine and have shown the way for the resurrection of the Near East as a whole."

In view of this achievement, and of the legal right and urgent need for Palestine as a national home, the Zionists today appear unwilling to accept any solution to the Palestine problem which will not give them control over immigration and some measure of internal political and social control over the destiny of the country.

Today Palestine is a police state. Where a few years ago Britain gave as one of its official reasons for restricting immigration the argument that a hundred thousand troops would be needed to maintain order, today troops in excess of that number and segments of the British Navy are stationed to prevent the entrance of more Jews. In pursuance of the maintenance of "law and order" they have imprisoned and deported hundreds of men without trial; they have imposed curfews on entire cities for as long as twenty-three hours a day; they have raided the offices of the Jewish Agency, which was established by the same mandate which made Britain the mandatory power. They have "facilitated" the entrance of Jews into Palestine by establishing concentration camps on the island of Cyprus in which refugees from Dachau and Belsen could find familiar surroundings.

This type of law and order is being disputed by the entire Jewish community in Palestine and by Zionists and sympathizers the world over. It is unlikely that this type of law and order will reduce the amount of forceful opposition to the White Paper of 1939; on the contrary, until the Zionists obtain satisfactory terms from Britain, violence will in all probability increase and be more popularly accepted as a form of politics. It cannot be expected that desperate men, who have seen over five million of their people die because they were Jews and for that reason alone, will peacefully stand by while the few hundred thousand remaining in Europe are prevented from entering their only refuge solely again because they are Jews.

BOOK REVIEWS

FOR ALL MANKIND

By LEON BLUM —*Viking*

WHILE a prisoner of the Germans, in 1914, Leon Blum wrote this book as an appeal to the younger generation of France to discard the rule of Vichy and return to the principle of democratic socialism. *For All Mankind* is essentially then, a propaganda document, written at a time when all France was ruled by anti-democratic and defeatist forces. A spirit of defeatism, of gloom and depression ruled France and it was against this sentiment that Blum was writing. From a prison cell in Germany the former Socialist Premier was assuring a defeated France that the victory of the democratic forces was coming and that hope must not be lost.

Blum begins by examining the causes of the great disaster. He comes to the conclusion that democracy itself was not the cause, but the Third Republic failed because "its mistakes were due to defects of organization or of working, whose origins can easily be traced and for which remedies can be found." He goes on to show how the Republic was slow to realize the force growing up beside her and against her, how its system of government with its many parties, with its lack of continuity, its ineffectiveness and instability, and the rule of the bourgeoisie all contributed to the defeat of a France who, in 1939, was "hypnotized by her conviction of her own strength". Blum spares no one in his examination of causes, not even his own party. However it is the bourgeoisie upon whom most of the blame must fall. Blum's indictment, which takes up a third of the book, is a bitter one. His condemnation of this class covers all fields. He writes at length of the incompetency of the leaders of the bourgeois in every field: military, economic, political and social, concluding that—"The bourgeoisie of France allowed war to come to a people upon whom it had impressed neither its causes nor its meaning. It entered upon a war that it only half believed in and in whose justification it only half believed". It is this class that the war has completely wiped out, says Blum.

A new France thus, must now arise since the bourgeoisie have lost their firm grip, a new France based on democratic socialism and a rejection once and for all of the principles of bourgeois capitalism. A "moral revolution" must occur and a Social Democracy must become the program of tomorrow; and with other national democracies France will maintain an international order that keeps a world balance. Although suspicious of Russia Blum trusted that she too would join the other victorious powers in a peace based on social justice, not force.

This book offers nothing new, nothing constructive. I am sure that M. Blum's examination of the causes of the collapse of France, his opinions regarding France's parliamentary system, and of the actions of the leaders of the bourgeoisie are shared by most people. His idealistic picture of a peace based on social justice is a dream, dreamt by all. However, this book was not written to give a new opinion or a constructive plan for world peace. It was written to inspire a France that had been defeated, it was written to put new hope into the defeated democratic and socialist forces of France when all hope seemed lost, when the fatalistic attitude of the tragic Petain was the prevalent sentiment. *For All Mankind* is a beautiful and sincere statement of the democratic faith. Blum sees nothing but victory ahead for the allies — which was something to see in 1941. Never once does he express doubts concerning the ultimate defeat of the Axis powers.

We, in 1947, who read this statement of a man who knew no defeat for the cause he believed in, must keep in mind when, where, and why this book was written.

W.E.J.

HIROSHIMA

By JOHN HERSEY —*Alfred Knopf*

JOHN HERSEY has done what few journalists can or want to do: he has reported a human story without moralizing. With an almost Biblical simplicity of style he has allowed the facts of the event to depict the horror of the Hiroshima bombing and to provoke serious consideration of its ethical implications far more graphically than any slanted view of his own. And the result is a book, probably the most significant to come out of the war.

The author centers his account of the bombing around six people in Hiroshima, five Japanese and a German Jesuit priest. Their experiences on August 6, 1945 and the months immediately following are set down without embellishment: the report is literally that, with all the fidelity to fact that his investigation in Hiroshima made possible. His six heroes, or more accurately, his six subjects are an office clerk, a seamstress, two doctors, a Jesuit priest and a Methodist minister, their only common denominator that of experiencing and living through the first atomic attack in man's history. More than these six, Hersey deals with all 150,000 of the city's inhabitants. Even the city itself as a separate entity draws substance from its total destruction in that its poulation has forced on it a community of interest and misery as had never been the case in Hiroshima. All sorts of people act together in devastated Hiroshima, not out of any sense of the heroic but because they are obviously motivated by the same feelings of mutual sympathy that we believe inherent solely in those of democratic persuasion.

Hersey makes no obvious attempt to dramatize the results of the bomb: he lets the facts of the case speak for themselves. In the disinterested manner in which the whole story is written, he describes the group of soldiers whose eyes have melted in their sockets because of the fury of the explosion. He tells of one victim whose skin slides off his body "in huge, glove-like pieces" as he is being aided by other survivors. Typical of the book is this passage describing the death of a small child:

> The younger one had huge, raw flash burns on her body; the salt water must have been excruciatingly painful to her. She began to shiver heavily, and again said it was cold. Father Kleinsorge borrowed a blanket from someone nearby and wrapped her up, but she shook more and more . . . And then she suddenly stopped shivering and was dead.

Hersey *explicitly* leads the reader only to the point of moralizing or expressing personal convictions. He leaves it for the individual to draw whatever conclusions seem necessary. The point of having written *Hiroshima* seems to have been not the actual statement of conclusions but rather the supplying of the facts necessary for drawing any at all. With such detachment, Hersey has been able to write so thoroughly human a story that he might have used English instead of Japanese names and still gained the same sympathy for the victims of the atomic bomb. We are forced to consider that American pilots, following orders of the American staff, caused this destruction and suffering; we are forced to recall that we condemned perhaps less brutal action than this when it came from the part of the Germans. For the first time, an American observer has written of enemy peoples as human beings and not as representatives of a system that our democratic faith convicts of immorality and lawlessness.

If peacemakers would only consider such a statement as Hersey's when they deliberate the fate of Germans or Japanese as enemy groups, they might temper their impulse for retribution by a profound sympathy for the suffering that war has caused to the losers as well as the victors. As a human being, the minister who fears for the safety of his family is no different from any bomb victim, of whatever national allegiance, in the same circumstances. To argue that the government of these Japanese people instigated the war that resulted in atomic bombing is to disregard the humanity of the citizens of Hiroshima. Further than this, it is to disregard the facts of American, British and French policy from 1919 to 1941: it is no proven fact that Japan was the sole cause for war in 1941. All of these problems are inevitably brought up as one reads *Hiroshima*. Hersey has rightly judged that his answers to these questions are much less important than the stimulation of concern about them in others. By himself, John Hersey could no more than present the factual evidence, stripped of all personal sympathies and biases, in order to set the victor nations to thinking of the price of victory in human suffering caused in the name of human justice and human freedom.

C. M. L.

THE SCOT IN HISTORY

By WALLACE NOTESTEIN —*Yale*

THIS new book by Yale's Sterling Professor of History is a fascinating fund of historical thought and fact for the serious student and should prove of more than enough interest to entertain the more casual reader. For the knowledge of past events of the region north of Cumberland and Northumberland possessed by the average undergraduate of English history is confined to a few facts about Bruce and Wallace, the origin of James I, the meaning of 1707, and James Watt.

But Mr. Notestein has not been content to give merely a popular-length summation of Scottish social and political history, although the facts are here, and delightfully and informally presented. He has chosen a more difficult task, as expressed in the subtitle, "a study of the interplay of character and history" — that of proving national character a powerful force growing up out of his-

torical events (or of attitudes towards historical events) and in turn influencing later national history. And the author undertakes to trace the development of that living force, with its modifications, through Scotland's history, to the point where we see some of the aspects of her present position in the larger unit of Great Britain interpreted through her present-day national character.

Mr. Notestein is not the type of historian who retires into the seclusion of his subject and rests happy with the presentation of an organized mass of archaic data. He shows how the fusion of Highland and Lowland traits contributed to the ripening of a national character; how that character received some foreign influences; and how the Scottish tendency to emigration has made England, Canada, and the rest of the world as well particularly aware of Scotland and the Scots. All this is here as much as the scope and length of this comparatively short book permit. The last chapter, "The Scots and the English", is valuable as well for the light it throws, if only by contrast, upon English character.

How far one can accept the thesis embodied in this book, of national characters as powerful and determining factors in history, and what the points of conflict are between this theory and an economic interpretation of history, are fertile subjects for examination. Certainly Mr. Notestein has built up a strong case. He finds the Scots, for example, a more extreme, passionate, and less temperate people than the English. "Rebellion in Scotland corresponded to parliamentary resistance in England." They are given to bloody revenge and they nourish grudges. They have a melancholy tradition of valor in the midst of military defeat. And withal there is a staunch loyalty to the accepted sources of authority and an obeisance to the ideal of national existence and national independence.

The Presbyterian movement, initiated by the Treaty of Edinburgh in 1560, and finally made secure in 1689, is emphasized more by Mr. Notestein than any other single historical factor. For "what differentiated the modern Scot in character from other peoples more than anything else was the Reformation". In this connection must be mentioned the chapter entitled "The Two Books of Discipline" — how many remarkably democratic elements did this program of the church contain, particularly for the sixteenth century.

Without implying that the book suffers from the fault of unevenness of merit, there are without doubt some passages and chapters of greater interest and importance than others. In addition to those already mentioned one must commend the informative chapters on Scotland's two "Periclean Ages", which clearly demonstrate the value and power of groups of intellectuals in setting the tone of a period of national history. And yet it was perhaps the eighteenth century "Scientific Scots" who gave some of the impetus to the "decline of the arts and rise of machinery" and the subsequent Scottish "professionalism" that comes in such a poor second to the "English ideal of the amateur" in the author's final judgment. For it is admitted that the new industrial middle class of the nineteenth centeury was composed for the most part of the "acquisitive chaps who followed in the wake of the inventive and imaginative and got in on the flowing tide of business activity and were carried far". And it was this group that gave to Scots and to Scottish character the reputation for boastfulness and high regard for getting ahead in a material way.

Mr. Notestein makes the point in his preface that previously there have been few, if any, books attempting to trace national character historically. It would seem of the greatest importance to us at the present moment that someone as historically explicit as Mr. Notestein undertake an exposition of American character from the same viewpoint. The opinion might be ventured that such a study would reveal American character to be closer in point of later historical development to Scottish character than to English character.

JOHN R. FARNSWORTH

ANIMAL FARM

By GEORGE ORWELL —*Harcourt, Brace*

MR. ORWELL has made his case against Russia in a very charming medium. Nothing is so appealing to the general reading public as political satire written in simple style. Particularly is this true when the basic moral can be so readily grasped, when the scapegoat is such a popular one.

The Animal Farm is the Russian State, from which the humans: the aristocracy and bourgeoisie, have been driven by the animals: the proletariat. This revolution is directed by the pigs, acting on the tenets of Animalism formulated by old Major, a prize boar who died before the uprising.

The pigs are obviously the members of the Communist Party. That Communists merit this comparison with the least pleasing species in the farm yard is matter for conjecture. That such a comparison will not enlist reader sympathy for them, from other than hog-raisers, is virtually guaranteed.

I think readers of the book will agree that Mr. Orwell's sympathies are with the animals in their struggle against humans. I tried to identify this leaning with one of his animals; it was evident at once that he is no Stalinist. And, as I write, I am not yet certain that I have him; I believe that Orwell's handling of Trotsky in what semed quite tolerant fashion might merit study, but I shall leave this task to some outraged Party member. I still wonder if Mr. Orwell is really old Benjamin, the donkey. Benjamin knew "that things never had been, nor ever could be much worse — hunger, hardship, and disappointment being," so he said, "the unalterable law of life."

The animals set about to master their destiny, and for the most part they are a willing lot, ready to follow the pigs, their comrades. The pigs proceed with harmony at first, but soon Napoleon (Stalin) and Snowball (Trotsky), the leading organizers, have fundamental disagreements on policy. After a victorious fracas with the humans, the animals are forced to consider two versions of economic planning, and as Stalin forced his nationalistic development on the Russians, so does Napoleon with his comrades. Snowball is driven from the community.

Orwell then traces the development of the Russian state under the rule of the Communist Party. He makes an excellent case against them for their (as Trotsky used to say) "betrayal of the Revolution". For though the Farm rose in political stature and economic well-being, it did so as a ruthless mercantile state. Deviation followed deviation as the pigs moved from old Major's manifesto on the equality of all animals to their new concept: "All animals are equal but some animals are more equal than others."

Throughout *Animal Farm* I found the author unwilling to give the Devil his due. Whether this failing springs from a conviction that recognition of some merit in the Russian system is compromise, or else a belief that there is implicit in the definition of satire a denial of tolerance I am not sure. I thought it interesting that a book on Russia written in 1946 could manage to ignore World War II by pretending that it had not yet occurred.

It is difficult to reconcile the following, taken from Mr. Northrop's *The Meeting of East and West,* with George Orwell's picture of the dazed, illiterate and hungry Russian people. "Within two and one-half decades these Marxian communist leaders have transformed a people, the majority of whom were illiterate, into one of the most technically skilled, agriculturally, industrially and militaristically competent people in the world."

To recognize the conflict of ideologies, to understand that the freedom for which we, in the West, would die willingly is a concept virtually unknown in Eastern Europe, and to work in the hope that the battle-lines need not be formed again to resolve these difficulties, this seems to me by far the wiser approach. One does not seek to know and live with one's neighbors by mocking them. *Animal Farm* sees Russia in black and white. There is finality in its condemnation and no refugee animal is allowed to represent hope for the future.

Because the book is brilliantly written and short, because it is a masterpiece of slanting, and because in this chaotic political age such popular attacks on the leading opponent of Western values must be studied, *Animal Farm* is well worth investigation so long as the reader keeps in mind the bias with which it was written.

J. G. L.

THE ROOSEVELT I KNEW

By Frances Perkins —*Viking*

Good biographies of great men are seldom written soon after their death. Only after careful study of the man's life, its development through the years, its failures and triumphs; only when the petty prejudices and bitterness of his contemporaries have passed; only when the man's personality is understood can a biography of a great man be complete. Fortunately Miss Perkins has not attempted a biography. Her book is a character study of Franklin Roosevelt. Yet her book is the best study yet published of this gigantic figure and will also be a most important contribution to the bibliography of any formal or definitive work on Roosevelt. *The Roosevelt I Knew* is a study of her personal association with Roosevelt through thirty-five years of his life; and in a modest, personal, uncritical fashion Miss Perkins writes of this complex figure—"It is biased in his favor . . . I am bound to him by ties of affection, common purposes and joint undertakings."

The author met Roosevelt at a tea dance in 1910 when "no one who saw him would have been likely to think of him as a potential President of the United States". From that year, when she was a modest social worker, through the Wilson era (when Roosevelt began to "unbend"), through his tragic illness, through the Governorship of New York and finally the Presidency, Miss Perkins was associated politically and personally with Roosevelt. She saw his personality developing, his mind continuing to grow during these periods. Much attention is given to the years 1921-1928 when Roosevelt, unable to be active physically any longer, be-

gan to develop intellectually, when he underwent what the author calls a "spiritual transformation". It was during this period that his humility, his disregard for fear, his warmheartedness to all people began to emerge. His viability, so characteristic of the Roosevelt we knew, was beginning to show. "I noticed when he came back that the years of pain and suffering had purged the slightly arrogant attitude he had displayed on occasion before he was stricken. Although he rarely, almost never, spoke of his illness in later years, he showed that he had developed faith in the capacity of troubled people to respond to help and encouragement."

As Miss Perkins was officially associated with Roosevelt as labor secretary, Roosevelt the president is portrayed in relation to labor problems. In a series of chapters on the C.C.C., the N.R.A., Social Security and Labor Relations, the author devotes a large portion of her book telling of those exciting New Deal days and Roosevelt the domestic leader. From a general idea the New Deal developed into several courses of action. It was a psychological idea at first, it was not a well thought out plan. Constantly Roosevelt was experimenting. The C.C.C. for instance is a good example of Roosevelt's methods during those early days. Being a rural man himself he thought conservation of the nation's forests was imperative. Thus he thought of the Corps as a means both of employing young men and boys and of saving his beloved trees. He rushed the project through and left it to his assistants to take care of the details. During the New Deal period he conceived most of the ideas, had a vague idea about the organization of a certain project but relied on the "brain trusters" and other assistants to take care of the details. This is the reason, Miss Perkins believes, that he was a poor negotiator in labor disputes. His imagination, his many ideas on the subject made union and industrial leaders think him impractical. When one idea didn't work, he would try another, compromising when necessary yet always trying. In the realm of social security he used not only his own ideas but those of members of Congress, such as Doughton, Wagner, Lewis and Harrison, his cabinet and other associates before the bill became law. This bargaining characteristic was used many times by Roosevelt the politician. The Roosevelt of the New Deal period, as his close associate knew him, was a man of many ideas without any fixed plan as to the carrying out of those ideas; a man pragmatic, intuitive, experimental, adaptable to new circumstances, compromising when politically necessary; a man whose course of action was determined not by his mind but his feelings; a man who loved the people—"He would rather talk to people than sit at his desk and be President".

In addition to finding a wealth of facts concerning labor relations during this period, historians and biographers have Miss Perkins to thank for explaining the story behind the various New Deal measures — Roosevelt's personality.

In the war years his associates outside the military field saw him less and less. The Roosevelt with the sense of purpose of leadership emerged and his administrative genius reached its height — "He was the catalyst through whose efforts chaotic forces were brought to a point where they could be harnessed creatively".

His last months are described with sentiment not sentimentality. The reader is moved by such a simple sentence as — "He was tired, and couldn't bear to be tired". There is no attempt at moralizing, at martyrizing Roosevelt.

This book is essentially the story of the maturing of a great man — "He was not born great: he made himself great". It is a story of the personality development of a complex figure. The historians and biographers of Roosevelt should heed Miss Perkins' warning against a "rigid legend." "Methods which he pursued in the past are not necessarily what he would have used today". The pragmatic Roosevelt is so emphasized that the amateurish efforts of Elliot Roosevelt and Louis Adamic seem to get a sound spanking. No one can say what he would have done. All we know is that Roosevelt, as Miss Perkins knew him, was interested in and influenced by human and moral values. Out of his complex personality these values stand out. Those who profess themselves to be keepers of the Roosevelt conscience must get closer to the man himself rather than the legendary leader. In her excellent, vivid character study of the man she knew so well, Frances Perkins has done just that.

W.E.J.

WHERE ARE WE HEADING?

By Sumner Welles —*Harper*

In answer to the question posed by the title of his book, Mr. Welles says flatly that except for a few, scattered instances, those in command of our foreign policy seem not to know themselves where we are heading; and further, with their actions serving as our guide, no perceptible pattern appears even if they do know. This new volume by the former Under Secretary of State is essentially a four hundred page diatribe against nearly every policy and every policy maker in the State Department today. Although his case is most convincing some of the time, Mr. Welles himself has

dodged answers to other problems or suggests only platitudes in place of practical policy.

The basic theme of most of the book is one with which few Americans will disagree: "Neither the Soviet Union nor the United States can be safe unless each is confident that there is no reason for it to defend itself against the other." Yet, opposed to this realization of two power supremacy in world affairs, Mr. Welles goes on to make of Russia the "bad boy" of the world. In Eastern Europe, the Near East and the Orient, the Soviet expansionist policy is labeled as the main hindrance to security and peace. Thus, there runs through the book this unresolved paradox: we must co-operate with the Soviet Union and yet how, considering Soviet actions, can this unity be accomplished? Mr. Welles might more profitably have considered this problem than to spend most of his time criticizing official attempts at a solution.

And, always joined with Russia are State Department officials who act, if not unwisely, at least not in accord with what Mr. Welles presumes *would have been* Franklin Roosevelt's policy. This is the second great fault with Mr. Welles' analysis: he suggests that all problems should be solved in light of the late President's agreements, all of which were reached when the exigencies of war forced at least a surface comity of interests on the Big Three. Mr. Welles merely mentions that perhaps changed conditions inevitably have forced a change in U. S. policy toward Russia and the other world powers. Doubtless Franklin Roosevelt would, if he were living, provide a more forceful and determined leadership in foreign affairs than has been the case with President Truman and Secretary Byrnes. But Mr. Welles is concerned with problems that demand a realistic approach, not idle hypothesis.

A strong case is made against the amateurish men to whom President Truman has entrusted foreign relations. Mr. Byrnes, at the time of his appointment, was inexperienced in world affairs and could bring only energy and the best of intentions to bear at Potsdam and Moscow in 1945, whereas inspired leadership and diplomacy were required. Mr. Stettinius again suffered from the same disadvantage in San Francisco at the hands of Soviet representatives, all well-schooled in the art of diplomacy and in the Moscow official line. Also in a negative vein, Mr. Welles scores the great powers for their cavalier disregard of those representatives in the United Nations of the smaller powers, men who he believes have the most awareness of basic world problems and who have the greatest courage and foresight in all their recommendations to the Big Three. Aside from his criticisms, Mr. Welles makes many intelligent suggestions of his own: Italy should retain Trieste (mainly to keep it out of Soviet-influenced hands); Palestine should be established as a Jewish commonwealth (to prevent Soviet domination through the Arab leaders); Germany should be decentralized into a confederation of states bound solely by trade and defense unions; and large-scale population transfers are the only solution for minority problems in Eastern Europe and in India.

By far the most compelling argument is made against the Truman policy toward Latin America. Writing of a subject about which he has a great fund of first hand information, Mr. Welles condemns U. S. policy toward the Peron government in Argentina in particular and our disregard of all Latin American pre-war and wartime commitments in general. Mr. Braden, rather than Col. Peron, is the villain of this enlightening and shocking chapter: Mr. Welles convincingly accuses Braden of making the single greatest campaign contribution to Peron in the Argentinian elections. In his poorly-timed and groundless accusations, Braden made for national solidarity such as would never have been the case otherwise. Our entire list of past successes in building self-sufficient and trusting inter-American friends has been thrown into jeopardy mainly because of ill-considered acts on the part of mis-informed State Department officials.

The final and all-encompassing condemnation is made of the fact that we lack, above all else, vigorous central leadership such as Franklin Roosevelt provided in the field of foreign affairs. Without direction, we flounder helplessly and fail to make capital out of errors: instead we make the same mistakes repeatedly. With all this, Mr. Welles grants that huge strides have been made in building the United Nations into a "promising basis for effective international organization." It is to be regretted that Mr. Welles so often gives the impression of being merely an embittered *ex*-official. He has so much of value to offer, so many constructive suggestions to make (though most of them are offered as negatives of what exists) that this could have been a much more worth-while book than it is. Rather than writing wisely from the personal information and acumen that he possesses, he has chosen to descend to a carping attack, for the most part, of a State Department fighting gamely to win peace and security for the world and thus for the United States. *Where Are We Heading?* is not so disappointing because of what is said but rather for what Mr. Welles has chosen not to say and not to recommend.

C.M.L.

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